

The Entity-Relationship Model—Toward a Unified View of Data

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A data model, called the entity-relationship model, is proposed. This model incorporates some of the important semantic information about the real world. A special diagrammatic technique is introduced as a tool for database design. An example of database design and description using the model and the diagrammatic technique is given. Some implications for data integrity, information retrieval, and data manipulation are discussed.

The entity-relationship model can be used as a basis for unification of different views of data: the network model, the relational model, and the entity set model. Semantic ambiguities in these models are analyzed. Possible ways to derive their views of data from the entity-relationship model are presented.

Key Words and Phrases: database design, logical view of data, semantics of data, data models, entity-relationship model, relational model, Data Base Task Group, network model, entity set model, data definition and manipulation, data integrity and consistency

CR Categories: 3.50, 3.70, 4.33, 4.34

1. INTRODUCTION

The logical view of data has been an important issue in recent years. Three major data models have been proposed: the network model [2, 3, 7], the relational model [8], and the entity set model [25]. These models have their own strengths and weaknesses. The network model provides a more natural view of data by separating entities and relationships (to a certain extent), but its capability to achieve data independence has been challenged [8]. The relational model is based on relational theory and can achieve a high degree of data independence, but it may lose some important semantic information about the real world [12, 15, 23]. The entity set model, which is based on set theory, also achieves a high degree of data independence, but its viewing of values such as "3" or "red" may not be natural to some people [25].

This paper presents the entity-relationship model, which has most of the advantages of the above three models. The entity-relationship model adopts the more natural view that the real world consists of entities and relationships. It

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incorporates some of the important semantic information about the real world (other work in database semantics can be found in [1, 12, 15, 21, 23, and 29]). The model can achieve a high degree of data independence and is based on set theory and relation theory.

The entity-relationship model can be used as a basis for a unified view of data. Most work in the past has emphasized the difference between the network model and the relational model [22]. Recently, several attempts have been made to reduce the differences of the three data models [4, 19, 26, 30, 31]. This paper uses the entity-relationship model as a framework from which the three existing data models may be derived. The reader may view the entity-relationship model as a generalization or extension of existing models.

This paper is organized into three parts (Sections 2–4). Section 2 introduces the entity-relationship model using a framework of multilevel views of data. Section 3 describes the semantic information in the model and its implications for data description and data manipulation. A special diagrammatic technique, the entity-relationship diagram, is introduced as a tool for database design. Section 4 analyzes the network model, the relational model, and the entity set model, and describes how they may be derived from the entity-relationship model.

2. THE ENTITY-RELATIONSHIP MODEL

2.1 Multilevel Views of Data

In the study of a data model, we should identify the levels of logical views of data with which the model is concerned. Extending the framework developed in [18, 25], we can identify four levels of views of data (Figure 1):

- (1) Information concerning entities and relationships which exist in our minds.
- (2) Information structure—organization of information in which entities and relationships are represented by data.
- (3) Access-path-independent data structure—the data structures which are not involved with search schemes, indexing schemes, etc.
- (4) Access-path-dependent data structure.

In the following sections, we shall develop the entity-relationship model step by step for the first two levels. As we shall see later in the paper, the network model, as currently implemented, is mainly concerned with level 4; the relational model is mainly concerned with levels 3 and 2; the entity set model is mainly concerned with levels 1 and 2.

2.2 Information Concerning Entities and Relationships (Level 1)

At this level we consider entities and relationships. An *entity* is a “thing” which can be distinctly identified. A specific person, company, or event is an example of an entity. A *relationship* is an association among entities. For instance, “father-son” is a relationship between two “person” entities.¹

¹ It is possible that some people may view something (e.g. marriage) as an entity while other people may view it as a relationship. We think that this is a decision which has to be made by the enterprise administrator [27]. He should define what are entities and what are relationships so that the distinction is suitable for his environment.

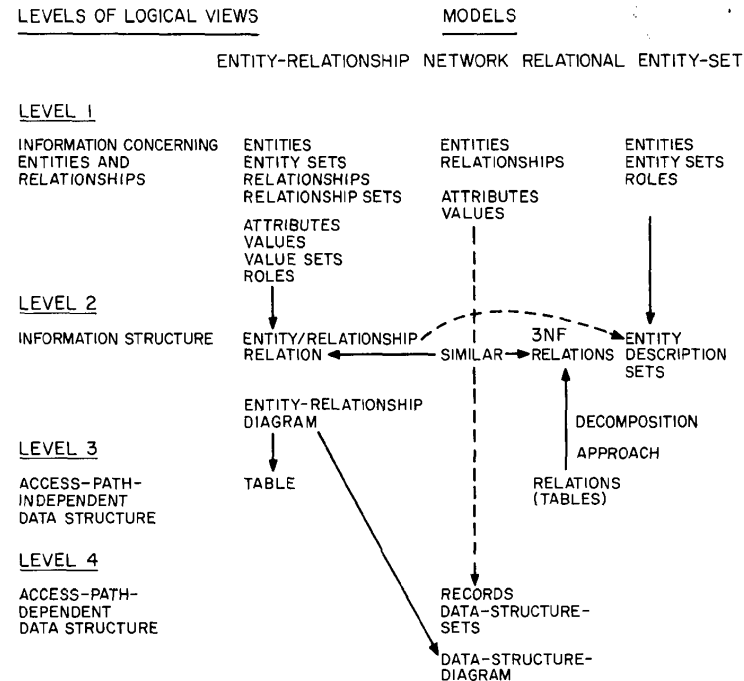


Fig. 1. Analysis of data models using multiple levels of logical views

The database of an enterprise contains relevant information concerning entities and relationships in which the enterprise is interested. A complete description of an entity or relationship may not be recorded in the database of an enterprise. It is impossible (and, perhaps, unnecessary) to record every potentially available piece of information about entities and relationships. From now on, we shall consider only the entities and relationships (and the information concerning them) which are to enter into the design of a database.

2.2.1 Entity and Entity Set. Let e denote an entity which exists in our minds. Entities are classified into different *entity sets* such as EMPLOYEE, PROJECT, and DEPARTMENT. There is a predicate associated with each entity set to test whether an entity belongs to it. For example, if we know an entity is in the entity set EMPLOYEE, then we know that it has the properties common to the other entities in the entity set EMPLOYEE. Among these properties is the aforementioned test predicate. Let E_i denote entity sets. Note that entity sets may not be mutually disjoint. For example, an entity which belongs to the entity set MALE-PERSON also belongs to the entity set PERSON. In this case, MALE-PERSON is a subset of PERSON.

2.2.2 Relationship, Role, and Relationship Set. Consider associations among entities. A *relationship set*, R_i , is a mathematical relation [5] among n entities,

each taken from an entity set:

$$\{[e_1, e_2, \dots, e_n] \mid e_1 \in E_1, e_2 \in E_2, \dots, e_n \in E_n\},$$

and each tuple of entities, $[e_1, e_2, \dots, e_n]$, is a *relationship*. Note that the E_i in the above definition may not be distinct. For example, a “marriage” is a relationship between two entities in the entity set PERSON.

The *role* of an entity in a relationship is the function that it performs in the relationship. “Husband” and “wife” are roles. The ordering of entities in the definition of relationship (note that square brackets were used) can be dropped if roles of entities in the relationship are explicitly stated as follows: $(r_1/e_1, r_2/e_2, \dots, r_n/e_n)$, where r_i is the role of e_i in the relationship.

2.2.3 Attribute, Value, and Value Set. The information about an entity or a relationship is obtained by observation or measurement, and is expressed by a set of attribute-value pairs. “3”, “red”, “Peter”, and “Johnson” are values. Values are classified into different *value sets*, such as FEET, COLOR, FIRST-NAME, and LAST-NAME. There is a predicate associated with each value set to test whether a value belongs to it. A value in a value set may be equivalent to another value in a different value set. For example, “12” in value set INCH is equivalent to “1” in value set FEET.

An *attribute* can be formally defined as a function which maps from an entity set or a relationship set into a value set or a Cartesian product of value sets:

$$f: E_i \text{ or } R_i \rightarrow V_i \text{ or } V_{i_1} \times V_{i_2} \times \dots \times V_{i_n}.$$

Figure 2 illustrates some attributes defined on entity set PERSON. The attribute AGE maps into value set NO-OF-YEARS. An attribute can map into a Cartesian product of value sets. For example, the attribute NAME maps into value sets FIRST-NAME, and LAST-NAME. Note that more than one attribute may map from the same entity set into the same value set (or same group of value sets). For example, NAME and ALTERNATIVE-NAME map from the entity set EMPLOYEE into value sets FIRST-NAME and LAST-NAME. Therefore, attribute and value set are different concepts although they may have the same name in some cases (for example, EMPLOYEE-NO maps from EMPLOYEE to value set EMPLOYEE-NO). This distinction is not clear in the network model and in many existing data management systems. Also note that an attribute is defined as a function. Therefore, it maps a given entity to a single value (or a single tuple of values in the case of a Cartesian product of value sets).

Note that relationships also have attributes. Consider the relationship set PROJECT-WORKER (Figure 3). The attribute PERCENTAGE-OF-TIME, which is the portion of time a particular employee is committed to a particular project, is an attribute defined on the relationship set PROJECT-WORKER. It is neither an attribute of EMPLOYEE nor an attribute of PROJECT, since its meaning depends on both the employee and project involved. The concept of attribute of relationship is important in understanding the semantics of data and in determining the functional dependencies among data.

2.2.4 Conceptual Information Structure. We are now concerned with how to organize the information associated with entities and relationships. The method proposed in this paper is to separate the information about entities from the infor-

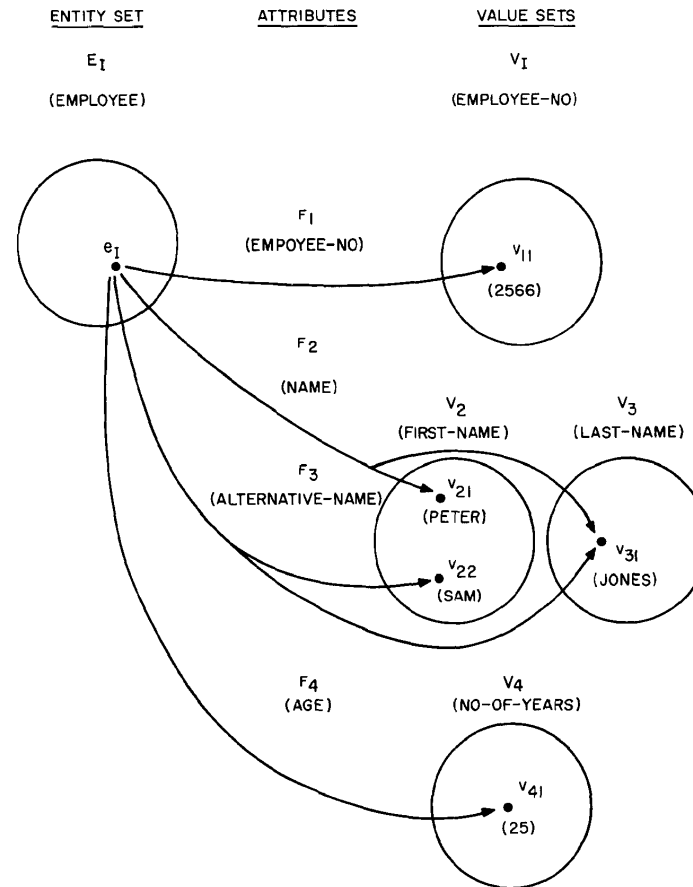


Fig. 2. Attributes defined on the entity set PERSON

mation about relationships. We shall see that this separation is useful in identifying functional dependencies among data.

Figure 4 illustrates in table form the information about entities in an entity set. Each row of values is related to the same entity, and each column is related to a value set which, in turn, is related to an attribute. The ordering of rows and columns is insignificant.

Figure 5 illustrates information about relationships in a relationship set. Note that each row of values is related to a relationship which is indicated by a group of entities, each having a specific role and belonging to a specific entity set.

Note that Figures 4 and 2 (and also Figures 5 and 3) are different forms of the same information. The table form is used for easily relating to the relational model.

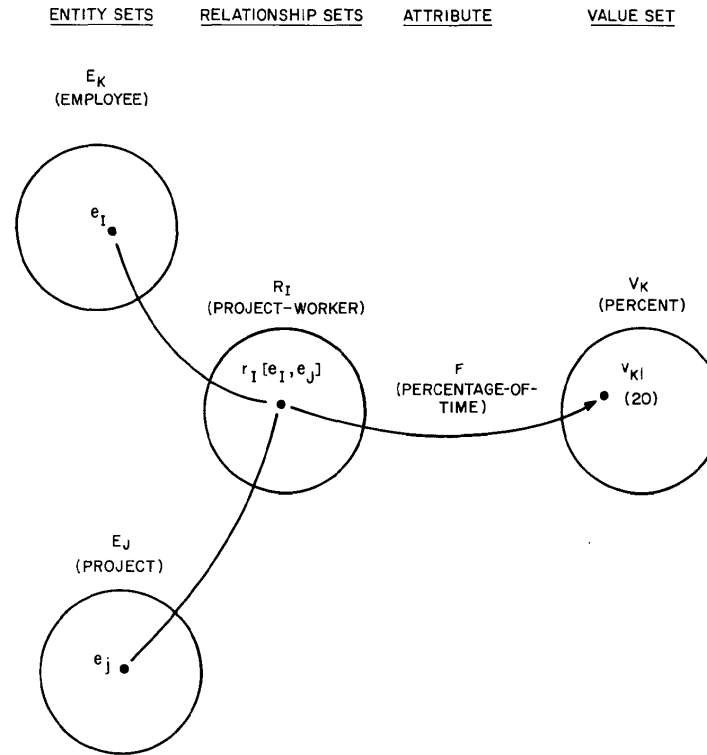


Fig. 3. Attributes defined on the relationship set PROJECT-WORKER

2.3 Information Structure (Level 2)

The entities, relationships, and values at level 1 (see Figures 2-5) are conceptual objects in our minds (i.e. we were in the conceptual realm [18, 27]). At level 2, we consider representations of conceptual objects. We assume that there exist direct representations of values. In the following, we shall describe how to represent entities and relationships.

2.3.1 Primary Key. In Figure 2 the values of attribute EMPLOYEE-NO can be used to identify entities in entity set EMPLOYEE if each employee has a different employee number. It is possible that more than one attribute is needed to identify the entities in an entity set. It is also possible that several groups of attributes may be used to identify entities. Basically, an *entity key* is a group of attributes such that the mapping from the entity set to the corresponding group of value sets is one-to-one. If we cannot find such one-to-one mapping on available data, or if simplicity in identifying entities is desired, we may define an artificial attribute and a value set so that such mapping is possible. In the case where

ATTRIBUTE ENTITY SET AND VALUE SET	F_1	F_2	F_3		F_4	
	(EMPLOYEE-NO)	(NAME)	(ALTERNATIVE-NAME)		(AGE)	
E_1	V_1	V_2	V_3	V_2	V_3	V_4
(EMPLOYEE)	(EMPLOYEE-NO)	(FIRST-NAME)	(LAST-NAME)	(FIRST-NAME)	(LAST-NAME)	(NO-OF-YEARS)
e_1	v_{11} (2566)	v_{21} (PETER)	v_{31} (JONES)	v_{22} (SAM)	v_{31} (JONES)	v_{41} (25)
e_2	v_{12} (3378)	v_{23} (MARY)	v_{32} (CHEN)	v_{24} (BARB)	v_{33} (CHEN)	v_{42} (23)
$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$

Fig. 4. Information about entities in an entity set (table form)

ROLE	WORKER	PROJECT	F (PERCENTAGE-OF-TIME)	RELATIONSHIP ATTRIBUTE
	E_1 (EMPLOYEE)	E_j (PROJECT)	V_k (PERCENTAGE)	VALUE SET
ENTITY SET	e_{11}	e_{j1}	v_{k1} (20)	
	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	

Fig. 5. Information about relationships in a relationship set (table form)

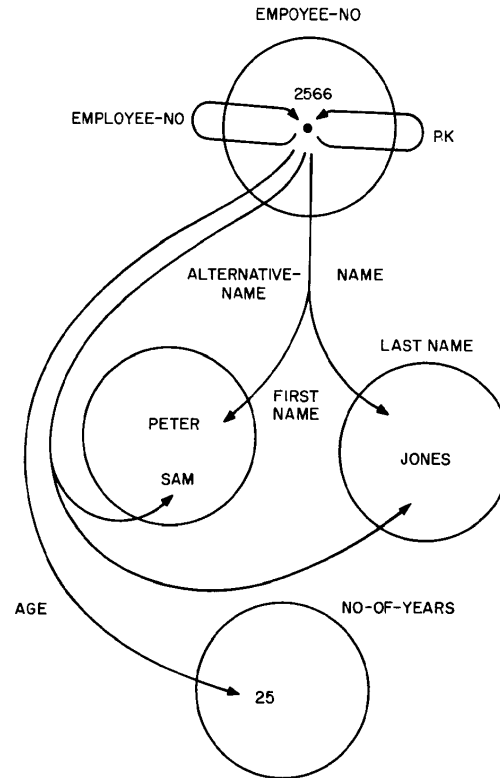


Fig. 6. Representing entities by values (employee numbers)

several keys exist, we usually choose a semantically meaningful key as the *entity primary key* (PK).

Figure 6 is obtained by merging the entity set EMPLOYEE with value set EMPLOYEE-NO in Figure 2. We should notice some semantic implications of Figure 6. Each value in the value set EMPLOYEE-NO represents an entity (employee). Attributes map from the value set EMPLOYEE-NO to other value sets. Also note that the attribute EMPLOYEE-NO maps from the value set EMPLOYEE-NO to itself.

2.3.2 Entity/Relationship Relations. Information about entities in an entity set can now be organized in a form shown in Figure 7. Note that Figure 7 is similar to Figure 4 except that entities are represented by the values of their primary keys. The whole table in Figure 7 is an *entity relation*, and each row is an *entity tuple*.

Since a relationship is identified by the involved entities, the *primary key of a relationship* can be represented by the primary keys of the involved entities. In

ATTRIBUTE VALUE SET (DOMAIN) ENTITY (TUPLE)	RELATIONAL VIEW	PRIMARY KEY				
		EMPLOYEE-NO	NAME		ALTERNATIVE-NAME	AGE
		EMPLOYEE-NO	FIRST-NAME	LAST-NAME	FIRST-NAME	LAST-NAME
		2566	PETER	JONES	SAM	JONES
		3378	MARY	CHEN	BARB	CHEN
		⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮	⋮

Fig. 7. Regular entity relation EMPLOYEE

Figure 8, the involved entities are represented by their primary keys EMPLOYEE-NO and PROJECT-NO. The role names provide the semantic meaning for the values in the corresponding columns. Note that EMPLOYEE-NO is the primary key for the involved entities in the relationship and is not an attribute of the relationship. PERCENTAGE-OF-TIME is an attribute of the relationship. The table in Figure 8 is a *relationship relation*, and each row of values is a *relationship tuple*.

In certain cases, the entities in an entity set cannot be uniquely identified by the values of their own attributes; thus we must use a relationship(s) to identify them. For example, consider dependents of employees: dependents are identified by their names and by the values of the primary key of the employees supporting them (i.e. by their relationships with the employees). Note that in Figure 9,

ENTITY RELATION NAME ROLE ENTITY ATTRIBUTE VALUE SET (DOMAIN) RELATIONSHIP TUPLE	RELATIONAL VIEW	PRIMARY KEY		
		EMPLOYEE	PROJECT	
		WORKER	PROJECT	
		EMPLOYEE-NO	PROJECT-NO	PERCENTAGE-OF-TIME
		EMPLOYEE-NO	PROJECT-NO	PERCENTAGE
		2566	31	20
		2173	25	100
		⋮	⋮	⋮

Fig. 8. Regular relationship relation PROJECT-WORKER

	PRIMARY KEY			
ENTITY RELATION NAME	EMPLOYEE			
ROLE	SUPPORTER			
ENTITY ATTRIBUTE	EMPLOYEE-NO	NAME	AGE	RELATIONSHIP ATTRIBUTE
VALUE SET (DOMAIN)	EMPLOYEE-NO	FIRST-NAME	NO-OF-YEARS	RELATIONSHIP ATTRIBUTE
ENTITY TUPLE	2566	VICTOR	3	
	2173	GEORGE	6	
	⋮	⋮	⋮	

Fig. 9. A weak entity relation DEPENDENT

EMPLOYEE-NO is not an attribute of an entity in the set DEPENDENT but is the primary key of the employees who support dependents. Each row of values in Figure 9 is an entity tuple with EMPLOYEE-NO and NAME as its primary key. The whole table is an entity relation.

Theoretically, any kind of relationship may be used to identify entities. For simplicity, we shall restrict ourselves to the use of only one kind of relationship: the binary relationships with 1: n mapping in which the existence of the n entities on one side of the relationship depends on the existence of one entity on the other side of the relationship. For example, one employee may have n ($= 0, 1, 2, \dots$) dependents, and the existence of the dependents depends on the existence of the corresponding employee.

This method of identification of entities by relationships with other entities can be applied recursively until the entities which can be identified by their own attribute values are reached. For example, the primary key of a department in a company may consist of the department number and the primary key of the division, which in turn consists of the division number and the name of the company.

Therefore, we have two forms of entity relations. If relationships are used for identifying the entities, we shall call it a *weak entity relation* (Figure 9). If relationships are not used for identifying the entities, we shall call it a *regular entity relation* (Figure 7). Similarly, we also have two forms of relationship relations. If all entities in the relationship are identified by their own attribute values, we shall call it a *regular relationship relation* (Figure 8). If some entities in the relationship are identified by other relationships, we shall call it a *weak relationship relation*. For example, any relationships between DEPENDENT entities and other entities will result in weak relationship relations, since a DEPENDENT entity is identified by its name and its relationship with an EMPLOYEE entity. The distinction between regular (entity/relationship) relations and weak (entity/relationship) relations will be useful in maintaining data integrity.